

East or West? Regional Political Divisions in Ukraine since the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan”

Ivan Katchanovski, Ph.D.

School of Political Studies
University of Ottawa
Ottawa, ON
K1N 6N5, Canada
Tel. 613-407-1295
ikatchan@uottawa.ca

Paper prepared for presentation at the Annual Meeting of the American Political Science
Association in Washington, DC, August 28-31, 2014

Abstract

This paper analyzes changes in regional electoral behavior and attitudes towards separatism and foreign policy orientation in Ukraine after the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan,” which turned into a violent internal conflict and one of the biggest international conflicts involving Western countries and Russia. The research question is whether the regional divisions concerning domestic politics, separatism and foreign orientation have changed significantly in Ukraine since the “Orange Revolution” in 2004 and the “Euromaidan” in 2014. This paper employs comparative and statistical analyses of voting results of the 2012, 2007, 2006, and 2002 parliamentary elections, and the 2014, 2010, and 2004 presidential elections, to examine effects of historical legacies, ethnicity, language, age, and economic factors on regional support for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist political parties and presidential candidates. The study also analyses support for separatism in Crimea and Donbas after the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.” It uses a brief survey, conducted for this study by the Kyiv International Institute of Sociology (KIIS) in April and May 2014, to examine determinants of pro-separatist attitudes. The paper also employs Razumkov Center and KIIS surveys to analyze changes in 2002-2014 in regional preferences for joining the European Union (EU), NATO, and a union with Russia. The analysis shows that Ukraine after the “Orange Revolution” remained divided along regional lines in terms of support for political parties and presidential candidates and attitudes towards joining the EU, NATO, and a Russia-led union. After the “Euromaidan,” such divisions in foreign policy orientation and, to a lesser extent, support for presidential candidates and political parties remained. A significant rise in separatist sentiments helped to fuel separatist takeovers of power in Crimea and Donbas and Russian military intervention in these regions.

Research Question

The “Euromaidan” represented crucial development not only in Ukrainian politics but also in global politics. Like the “Orange Revolution” in 2004, it involved mass protest movement against the incumbent government and a victory of pro-Western and nationalist forces which gained power. But in contrast to the “Orange Revolution,” the “Euromaidan,” which was initially primarily a peaceful movement, turned into a violent conflict which resulted in a de-facto break-up of Ukraine, the separation of Crimea with Russian military support and its subsequent annexation by Russia, and a pro-Russian separatist rebellion and subsequent Russian military intervention in Donbas. The “Euromaidan” also gave rise to a major international conflict between the Western states and Russia over Ukraine. The mass protests, known as the “Euromaidan,” were prompted by a decision by the Viktor Yanukovich government to suspend signing of the association and free trade agreement with the European Union (EU) in November 2013 and then by a violent dispersal of a sit-in on the Maidan (the Independence Square).

In contrast, the “Orange Revolution” in 2004 was sparked by an attempt to falsify presidential election in favor of Viktor Yanukovich. However, the conflict was resolved peacefully through elections. It led to a victory of Viktor Yushchenko in the repeat second round of the 2004 presidential elections. The “Orange Revolution” also involved Western governments backing of the mass protests and the Russian government support for Victor Yanukovich. The “Orange Revolution” also involved an attempt to create a separatist autonomous republic in Eastern and Southern Ukraine, but it did not lead to a break-up of Ukraine or a major international conflict.¹

The research question is whether the regional divisions in electoral behavior, support for separatism, and foreign policy orientation have changed significantly in Ukraine since the

“Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.” This study examines changes in regional support for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist political parties and presidential candidates, separatism, and attitudes towards EU and NATO membership and preferred relations with Russia since the “Orange Revolution” in 2004 and the “Euromaidan” in 2014. The paper also analyses effects of regional political culture compared to other factors, such as ethnicity, language, age, and economic development levels on such support.

Previous Studies

While many previous academic studies have shown existence of strong regional political divisions in independent Ukraine, most of them focused on such divisions before the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.” Regional variables had significant impact on support for nationalist and pro-Western parties and politicians vs. pro-Russian and pro-communist parties and politicians in parliamentary and presidential elections held since 1991. Surveys of public opinion conducted since 1991 also demonstrated regional divides between on many major domestic politics and foreign orientation issues, such as status of Russian language, Ukraine’s membership in NATO, and its relations with Russia.² However, the majority of previous studies focused on analysis of a single election or survey, and most of them did not examine changes in regional divisions, in particular, in support for political parties, presidential candidates, separatism, and attitudes towards foreign policy orientations of Ukraine.

However, in spite of such significant and persistent regional divisions, only a few scholars before the “Euromaidan” considered a territorial break-up or violent regional conflict in Ukraine as significant possibilities.³ For instance, a book-length study of regional cleavages and conflicts in Ukraine and Moldova argued that Ukraine came close to a violent break-up during

the “Orange Revolution,” and that a possibility of such a violent break-up of Ukraine similar to Moldova remained and that it dependent on political leaders in Ukraine and Russia.⁴ In contrast, two other book-length studies concluded that a potential conflict in Crimea was successfully prevented and that this autonomous region, which witnessed a strong separatist movement in the 1990s, became integrated into the Ukrainian polity. They argued that the pro-Russian secessionist movement in Crimea failed.⁵ Similar conclusions were made concerning other Southern and Eastern regions, such as Donbas.

This paper is one of the first academic studies of regionalism in Ukraine after the “Euromaidan.” The number of such studies is expected to rise significantly, because this issue became the most important issue in the Ukrainian politics and an important issue in foreign policies of the Western countries and Russia. The Western government leaders, the media, and many scholars presented the “Euromaidan” as a largely peaceful revolution, which was led by pro-Western democratic opposition to a pro-Russian government of President Yanukovych, who fled from Ukraine after a massacre of several dozens of opposition protesters by government snipers on his orders on the Maidan on February 20th, 2014.

However, the evidence indicates that the opposition, which included pro-Western, moderate nationalist and centrist parties and politicians, formed an alliance with the far right organizations and parties, such as Svoboda and the Right Sector, and overthrew the Yanukovych government with help of violence. In particular, unreported or misrepresented evidence, including videos, photos, and radio intercept of suspected shooters, and intercepted radio communications of commanders and snipers from the Security Service of Ukraine Alfa unit, indicate that certain elements of the opposition alliance including the far right, organized mass

killings of the protesters and members of special police units on the Maidan and the neighboring Instytutska Street.⁶

The Ukrainian government and the media and to a large extent their Western counterparts characterized separatism in Crimea and Donbas as having a minority support. They presented the results of referendums in these regions by separatists after they seized power there as not reflecting public preferences. The rise of separatism in both regions was attributed mostly to direct military intervention by Russia. The Ukrainian and Western governments and the media presented the separatist rebellion in Donbas as started and led from its beginning in Spring of 2014 by armed Russian military units and Russian military intelligence agents, who lacked popular backing. In contrast, the Russian government and media presented separatism in all Eastern and Southern Ukraine as having widespread popular support. Russian President Putin called this part of Ukraine Novorossiia (New Russia), a name of a historical region when it belonged to the Russian Empire.

However, the analysis shows that much of the evidence that the separatist conflict in Donbas resulted from a direct Russian military intervention was misrepresented or fabricated. For example, this concerns Ukrainian and Western governments' claims that Russian military and intelligence units or "green men" were leading the separatist fight in Donbas since it started in spring 2014. Conversely, the Russian government initially denied its direct military intervention in Crimea in March 2014, in spite of evidence that Russian military units without insignia ("green men") were operating along with paramilitary units of separatists in Crimea beyond the Russian naval base in Sevastopol and that they were seizing Ukrainian military units and government headquarters. Evidence indicates that the Russian government initially supported separatists in Donbas by allowing volunteers and weapons to cross the border from

Russia, and in providing weapons, recruitment, and training to separatists. Russia also threatened to use a military force in Ukraine and it deployed large numbers of military personnel near the border with Ukraine in spring and then in summer of 2014.

Various sources indicate that a direct Russian military intervention in Donbas began in the end of August 2014. It reportedly took form of incursions by several battalion-size units in support of a counterattack by separatist forces. Possibilities of a large-scale Russian military intervention in Donbas and neighboring regions in the East and the South of Ukraine and a war between Russia and Ukraine also remained.

The violent conflict in Donbas best fits a political science definition of a civil war. Although a significant portion of the separatist leadership and members of their armed formations were Russian nationalists, volunteers, or mercenaries from Russia, the majority of the separatist leaders and members of their armed formations were from Donbas, and, to a lesser extent, from other regions of Eastern and Southern Ukraine, including Crimea. By the time when Russian military units entered the fighting in Donbas in direct support of separatists in the end of August 2014, the battle-related casualties there reached estimated 4,000 people killed, including some 2,000 civilians, about 1,000 Ukrainian regular forces and special battalion members, and close to 1,000 members of separatist armed formations. This estimate is based on official casualty reports, which are updated and adjusted for significant undercounting of killed separatists and missing in action members of the Ukrainian forces and civilian residents.⁷ The civilian casualties include 298 passengers and crewmembers of a Malaysian Airlines plane, which was shot down in the Donetsk Region, most likely by separatists.

Both the “Euromaidan” and the “Orange Revolution” were often defined as revolutions. Such classification implied fundamental and radical changes in political institutions,

leaders, parties, and values on both national and regional levels in Ukraine, and, consequently, significant diminishing or elimination of regional divisions.⁸ Generational changes were expected to have similar impact on regional divisions, because of effect of political socialization in independent Ukraine, in contrast to socialization of older generations in the Soviet Union.⁹

Effects of the “Euromaidan” on changes in regionalism were expected to be more significant, compared to the “Orange Revolution.” In contrast to peaceful and relatively gradual and evolutionary changes after the “Orange Revolution, the Euromaidan produced more radical changes in the government, the political system, political parties, and foreign relations. The pro-Western government came to power after the “Euromaidan” as a result of a violent overthrow of the relatively pro-Russian government.

The ruling coalition after the “Euromaidan” included Svoboda, a radical nationalist party, which received several ministerial positions in the government. Svoboda was called the Social National Party until 2004 and it combined then elements of radical nationalism and Neo-Nazi ideology. Oleh Tiahnybok, its leader, was expelled from the Yushchenko’s Our Ukraine parliamentary faction for his anti-Semitic, anti-Polish, and anti-Russian speech shortly before the 2004 presidential elections. The “Euromaidan” government openly collaborated with radical nationalist and neo-Nazi parties and organizations, such as the Right Sector and the Social National Assembly. For example, special police battalions were organized on the basis of paramilitary units of these organizations. Similarly, the National Guard was organized on the basis of the Maidan Self-Defense, which had a significant involvement of the far right parties and groups.

Similarly, in contrast to a move towards a comparatively more democratic but still semi-democratic political system and relatively free and fair elections after the “Orange Revolution,”

the “Euromaidan” produced the change of the government not through democratic elections but with help of a violent overthrow of democratically elected government which was moving into a more authoritarian direction.

The political system after the “Euromaidan” shifted significantly towards a more authoritarian spectrum of still partially democratic system. For example, the leaders and many leading members of the main opposition parties, such as the Party of Regions and the Communist Party were targets of politically motivated selective prosecutions, both on founded to a various degree charges, such as corruption, but also on trumped-up charges of the mass killing of the Maidan protesters and separatism. The scale of such prosecutions far exceeded similar politically motivated selective prosecutions of the opposition leaders and activists, such as Yulia Tymoshenko, on various criminal charges during the Yanukovych government. In addition, many Party of Regions and Communist leaders and activists and their and their parties’ offices and houses were subjected to violent attacks and assaults by the far right organizations and groups, such as the Right Sector, Svoboda, its C14 neo-Nazi affiliate, and the Maidan Self-Defense. Such violence and threat of violence was also directed at many members of the parliament from these opposition parties. For the first time since *perestroika* in Soviet Ukraine in the end of 1980s, the absolute majority of parliamentary votes involved no votes cast against approved legislation. The first round of the 2014 presidential elections was the least free and fair in post-Soviet Ukraine in terms of the opposition participation. For instance, all three pro-Russian and Communist Party candidates were publicly assaulted by the far right and other Maidan activists during the election campaign, and two of them dropped from the race. All major television channels, including those controlled by formerly pro-Yanukovych oligarchs, presented pro-government positions after the “Euromaidan” and during the civil war in Donbas. Russian

Television channels were officially prohibited in Ukraine, and formerly pro-Yanukovich TV channels and pro-Russian, pro-communist or pro-separatist media were often targeted by the far right or the central authorities to force to change or stop their coverage.

The “Euromaidan” government prohibited separatist parties and organizations in Ukraine, initiated a prohibition of the Communist Party on mostly spurious separatism charges, attempted to suppress the separatist rebellion in Donbas with help of military force, the National Guard and paramilitary formations, many of which were led or involved participation of far right parties and organizations. Armed separatists were incorrectly branded as terrorists. Many separatist leaders and activists were arrested. Some 40 pro-Russian separatist protesters and employees in a trade union building were killed in a fire in Odesa in Southern Ukraine on May 2, 2014 as a result of an attack led by far right activists and protesters from the Right Sector, in particular, the Social-National Assembly, football ultras, and members of the Maidan Self-Defense with the police ordered not to intervene during this massacre.

Similarly, pro-Russian separatists seized power with help of violence or threat of violence in Crimea, and the Donetsk and Luhansk Region after the “Euromaidan.” They offered an armed resistance to the Ukrainian forces. A significant number of separatist leaders and activists were members of or associated with pro-Russian or Russian radical nationalist organizations based in Eastern and Southern Ukraine and in Russia. In separatist-held areas of Crimea and Donbas, pro-government Ukrainian parties and organizations were generally limited or prevented in ability to continue functioning; and many of their local leaders and activists were subjected to violence, threats of violence or detention. Broadcasts of most major Ukrainian television channels were stopped by separatists in Crimea and areas of Donbas that they controlled.

This study follows previous studies in defining separatism as including both an outright secession and a greater regional autonomy, which are not supported by the central government.¹⁰ In Ukraine, separatism includes not only unilateral secession but also a unilateral regional autonomy, specifically, a move from an existing unitary state towards federalism.

Previous surveys and studies showed that Western Ukrainians were significantly overrepresented in mass anti-government protests during both the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.”¹¹ Such overrepresentation involved more widespread and more numerous protests in regions of Western Ukraine, compared to the East and the South, and to lesser extent, the Center. Western Ukrainians were also significantly overrepresented among protesters in Kyiv City, which is located in the Center of Ukraine. Conversely, residents of Eastern and Southern regions were significantly underrepresented in the pro-Maidan protests in Kyiv, and such mass protest actions against the Yanukovych government were much less numerous and less attended in these regions.

A Political Culture Theory of Ukrainian Regionalism

This study, based on the political culture theory, expects to find persistence of significant regional differences after both the “Orange Revolution” and “the Euromaidan.” Political culture refers to shared fundamental values, norms, and orientations of people. It can emerge as a result of different historical experiences and religious legacies. These values, norms, and orientations are transferred from one generation to another by means of political socialization by family, organized religion, mass media, education institutions, neighbors, and other agents of socialization.¹² Voter alignment, party systems, and conflicts in many countries reflect historical cleavages¹³.

Political values change gradually over a long period of time, in contrast to political attitudes which are much more volatile. Changes in voting behavior and attitudes over a significant period of time can indicate a trend in political values. For this reason, frequently analyzed results of a single election or a poll, for example the 2004 or 2014 presidential elections, cannot be regarded as a reliable indicator of the political culture of Ukrainians.

Political culture theories attribute regional divisions in Ukraine to different political values that are unlikely to change radically over short period of time. Distinct regional political cultures emerged as a result of different historical experiences before World War I and World War II. Seven Western Ukrainian regions experienced Polish, Czechoslovak, and Romanian rule between the World Wars. The political culture in most of these regions was also influenced by the legacy of Austro-Hungarian rule before World War I and by the Greek Catholic Church. Nationalist and pro-Western values developed in the regions of historical Western Ukraine, i.e. regions that became part of Soviet Ukraine as a result of World War II. In contrast, a pro-Russian and pro-communist political culture evolved in regions of historic Eastern Ukraine, i.e. the rest of present-day Ukraine, as a result of long periods of first Russian and then Soviet rule. However, there were also significant differences among regions of Western Ukraine, such as Galicia, Bukovyna, Transcarpathia, and Volhynia, and among regions of historic Eastern Ukraine, such as the geographic Center, the East, and the South.¹⁴

Shared regional historical experiences before World War I and World War II shaped political values and norms of Ukrainians living in the same region in similar directions. These historical periods represented crucial junctures in the evolution of distinct regional political cultures. They coincided with formation of national identities and mass education of the

population. These political values were transferred from one generation to another, including the post-Soviet generation in independent Ukraine.

The political culture theory predicted that separatist views in Crimea are unlikely to decrease radically over a relatively short-term period. Not only ethnic Russians but also ethnic Ukrainians in Crimea developed stronger pro-Russian and pro/communist political values compared to their counterparts in other regions of Ukraine, because this region belonged to Russia, including in the Soviet times, for a much longer time period than regions of not only Western Ukraine but also historically Eastern Ukraine. Crimea was transferred from Soviet Russia to Soviet Ukraine only in 1954. In contrast to Russians and Ukrainians, the Crimean Tatars developed anti-Russian and anti-Communist political values because of their distinct historical experience, which was linked to Islam and Ottoman Turkey, and their forced exile by Joseph Stalin from Crimea to Central Asia during World War II.¹⁵

Previous studies show that Crimea and Donbas were two main regions with history of significant pro-Russian separatism in independent Ukraine. Separatist attitudes in these regions rapidly grew during or in the aftermath of major political crises, which resulted in victory of pro-Western and nationalist forces, and thus were perceived as negatively affecting these regions.¹⁶ Such crises included the collapse of the Soviet Union in 1991 and the “Orange Revolution” in 2004. Since the “Euromaidan” represented another such major political crisis, separatist preferences were likely to rise in both these regions.

Other factors that are likely to affect electoral behavior, foreign policy orientation, and support for separatism include ethnicity, language, religion, age, and economic well-being. Many previous studies attributed political regionalism in Ukraine to the role of ethnic, linguistic, economic, or geographic factors. For example, geographically western regions have much higher

proportions of ethnic Ukrainians and Ukrainian speakers and much lower proportions of ethnic Russians and Russian speakers compared to the South and the East.¹⁷ Specifically, ethnic Russian form the majority of the population in Crimea and close to half of the population in the Donetsk and Luhansk Region (Donbas). Eastern regions are generally more economically developed, industrialized, and urbanized, compared to the West.¹⁸

Methodology and Data

This paper employs comparative and statistical analyses of changes in electoral support for two major broad groups of political parties and candidates, support for separatism, and attitudes towards major foreign policy issues after the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.” It also analyses the effect of regional political culture, compared to other factors, such as ethnicity, language, economy, and religion.

This study classifies regional support for political parties and presidential candidates according to their ideological and foreign policy orientations. It groups parties or presidential candidates into two broad categories: pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist. The pro-nationalist/pro-Western category includes political parties, electoral blocs, and presidential candidates who publicly espoused nationalist ideas, such as Ukrainization of all levels of government, secondary and higher education, and mass media and/or advocate pro-Western foreign policy orientation, in particular, both EU and NATO memberships. For example, in the 2014 presidential elections and the April/May KIIS survey this group included the following presidential candidates: Yulia Tymoshenko, Oleh Liashko, Anatolii Hrytsenko, Oleh Tiahnybok, and Dmytro Yarosh. Pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties included in the April/May 2014 KIIS survey were the following: Fatherland, Svoboda, and “Our Ukraine.”

The pro-Russian/pro-Communist category is comprised of parties, blocs, and presidential candidates who publicly advocated granting Russian language a status of an official language, joining the Russian-led Customs Union, and/or are regarded as successors of the Ukrainian republican branch of the Communist Party of the Soviet Union. The inclusion of pro-Russian and pro-communist parties or candidates in the single category reflects the fact that the pro-communist parties and presidential candidates tended to support official status of Russian language and pro-Russian foreign policy orientation. In the 2014 presidential elections and the April/May KIIS survey, the pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates included the following candidates: Mykhailo Dobkin, Petro Symonenko, and Oleh Tsarirov. In the April/May 2014 KIIS survey, this category of parties comprised of the Party of Regions and the Communist Party.

Such classification is intended mainly to represent perceptions of the ideological and foreign policy orientations of parties and presidential candidates by voters. Many political leaders and political parties in Ukraine serve their own business interests or interests of oligarchs, and they often change their ideological positions on key issues.

This study uses regression analysis of official voting results to examine changes in regional support for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist parties in the 2012, 2007, 2006, and 2002 parliamentary elections. The multivariate regression analysis compares the role of regional variables in the vote for such candidates in the first rounds of the 2014, 2004, and 2010 presidential elections. It employs national surveys conducted by the Kyiv International Institute of Sociology in April/May 2014 and in 2007 to analyze the role of regional factors in support for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist parties and presidential candidates. This study also uses surveys conducted by the Razumkov Center and the

KIIS to examine changes in attitudes towards NATO, the European Union, and relations with Russia.

The Western regions dummy, as the omitted dummy variable in both OLS and logistic regressions, is used for the comparison of historically Western Ukraine with the Center, the South, and the East. The Western regions dummy is a proxy for distinct political culture of regions which had become a part of Soviet Ukraine as result of World War II and had much shorter histories of Russian and Soviet rule compared to other regions. Independent and socio-demographic variables include ethnicity, language, education, place of residence, the level of regional economic development and urbanization, religious confession, age, and gender.

A brief national survey conducted for the author by the KIIS in April/May 2014 provides data concerning determinants of support for separatism in Ukraine. However, this survey did not include Crimea. Razumkov Center surveys provide data concerning changes in support for separatism in Crimea and Donbas since the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan.”¹⁹

Support for Presidential Candidates

Vote for nationalist/pro-Western candidates jumped significantly in the 2014 presidential elections compared to the 2010 elections, most strongly in the Center. In contrast, the combined level of support for Viktor Yushchenko and other pro-nationalist/pro-Western candidates in the first round of the 2010 presidential elections declined significantly compared to 2004. Conversely, the vote for pro-Russian/pro-communist presidential candidates dropped across all regions, in 2014, and the vote also declined in the first round of the 2010 elections, compared to 2004. (Table 1).

[Table 1 about here]

The regression analysis shows that statistically significant regional differences in the vote for both groups of presidential candidates remained in both 2004 and 2010 elections between Western Ukraine and the Center, the South, and the East. In 2014, such differences remained only in the case of a lower vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western presidential candidates in the South, which then did not include Crimea, and in the case of the higher vote for pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates in the East. (See Table 2).

[Table 2 about here]

These significant changes in regional popularity of nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates after the “Euromaidan” reflected a number of factors. They included the violent overthrow of President Yanukovych, who was blamed for the massacre of the Maidan protesters and whose large scale corruption network was publicly exposed after he fled from Ukraine to Russia; the conflict with Russia over Crimea and Donbas; and a movement to the nationalist-pro-Western group by Yulia Tymoshenko, whose position shifted to publicly advocating not only EU but also NATO membership. Furthermore, the 2014 elections were not held in Crimea and most of the Donetsk and Luhansk Regions, which in previous presidential elections showed strongest support for pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates (Table 1). In addition, the 2014 elections were considerably less free and fair than the first rounds of the previous presidential elections.

A small minority of voters in Donbas participated in the 2014 presidential elections, where separatists seized de facto power and boycotted these elections. The April/May 2014 KIIS survey shows that the lack of central government legitimacy in Donbas was a key reason for a single digit voter turnout in the presidential elections on May 25, 2014. Some 70 percent of the

respondents in the Donetsk and Luhansk Regions said that they either would not vote or did not know which candidate to support.

Logistic regression analysis of intended voting preferences for potential presidential candidates in the 2014 and 2007 KIIS polls also shows that statistically significant regional differences remained in the case of support for pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates between Western Ukraine and both the South and the East, but the differences between the Center and the West became statistically insignificant in April/May 2014. The odds ratios of intended vote for such candidates were much higher in the East and the South compared to the West. Similarly, The odds of support for nationalist-pro-Western candidates in the East in 2014 remained much lower, compared to Western Ukraine. This was the only statistical regional difference in the 2014 KIIS survey, in contrast to statistical significance of all regional variables in the 2007 KIIS poll. (See Table 3).

It is noteworthy that the odds of intended vote for both categories of presidential candidates by ethnic Russians and Russian-speakers became statistically insignificant in 2014. In contrast, such ethnic and language-based differences were statistically significant in 2007 for voting preferences concerning both pro-Russian/pro-communist and pro-nationalist/pro-Western candidates. (See Table 3).

[Table 3 about here]

Political Party Vote

A comparison of regional vote for two major groups of political parties in the parliamentary elections held in 2012, 2007, 2006, and 2002 does not show revolutionary changes in the political orientations of Ukrainians in different regions after the “Orange Revolution.”

(Table 4). A large increase in nationalist-pro-Western vote in the Center in 2012 mostly reflected a public shift of the Fatherland Party to this political orientation after Tymoshenko was jailed on abuse of power charges following her loss to Yanukovich in the 2010 presidential elections. Fatherland fielded a joint list with Front Zmin during the 2012 parliamentary elections.

With the exception of the Center in 2012, support for pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties in Western Ukraine remained in all these elections much higher than in the geographic South and the East (Table 5). The vote for the pro-Russian/pro-communist parties was much lower in all four elections in historically Western Ukraine compared to Central, Southern, and Eastern regions. (See Table 6). The noted regional differences were statistically significant in all these cases. Standardized regression coefficients (Beta) show that the East and the South variables had much bigger effect, compared to ethnicity, Catholic religion, gross regional product per capita, and urbanization rate, on the regional vote for both pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist parties in the parliamentary elections held since 2002. (Table 5 and 6). However, the snap parliamentary elections announced for October 2014 are likely to produce changes similar to the 2014 presidential elections in terms of regional differences.

[Table 4, 5, and 6 about here]

Logistic regression analysis of intended vote in the 2014 and 2007 KIIS surveys demonstrates that the odds of voting for Russian/pro-communist parties were much higher in the Center, the South, and the East compared to Western Ukraine after both the “Euromaidan” and the “Orange Revolution.” All these regional differences were statistically significant. Conversely, the odds of voting for pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties in 2014 remained much lower and statistically significant in the South and the East, compared to Western Ukraine. In

contrast, the differences in intended vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western political parties between the Center and the West became statistically insignificant in 2014, in contrast to 2007. (Table 3).

This regression analysis shows that ethnic Russians after both the “Orange Revolution” and the “Euromaidan” had lower odds of voting for pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties and higher odds of voting for Russian/pro-communist parties. The ethnic Russian variable was statistically significant in 2014 and 2007. (See Table 3).

Support for Separatism in Crimea and Donbas

The 2001 Razumkov Center survey in Crimea showed that 50 percent of the respondents favored this region of Ukraine becoming a part of Russia, and 9 percent preferred to see their region as an independent state.²⁰ In the 2008 Razumkov Center poll taken soon after the Russian-Georgian war following an attempt by the Georgian government to seize the de-facto independent secessionist region of South Ossetia, 73 percent of the Crimeans, who made their minds on this issue, backed a secession of Crimea from Ukraine with a goal of joining Russia.²¹ However, the outright secessionist preferences in Crimea declined to 38 percent in the 2009 Razumkov Center poll and to 30 percent in the 2011 poll after the Yanukovych victory in the 2010 presidential election.²²

In the 2008 Razumkov Center Survey, 85 percent of ethnic Russians, 65 percent of ethnic Ukrainians, and 17 percent of the Crimean Tatars in Crimea wanted this region to secede from Ukraine, while 39 percent of the Crimean Tatars supported independence of Crimea.²³ The 2011 Razumkov Center Surveys showed that combined support for joining Russia and independence of Crimea decreased among ethnic Ukrainians to 25 percent from 35 percent in

2009. Attitudes of Russians demonstrated similar decline of separatist preferences to 35 percent from 43 percent. Such separatist feelings among Crimean Tatars remained the same in 2011 (28 percent), compared to 2009 (27 percent), but their support for joining Turkey increased from 4 percent in 2009 to 21 percent in 2011.²⁴

There are no directly comparable and publicly available reliable survey data in Crimea after the “Euromaidan.” The 97 percent level of support for joining Russia in a March 2014 referendum in Crimea was likely inflated to a certain extent. The referendum and the subsequent Russian annexation of this region of Ukraine were not recognized by the Ukrainian and Western governments. However, in a Pew Center survey in April 2014, 91 percent of the respondents in Crimea stated that the referendum was free and fair.²⁵ This poll result indicates that support for the separatism in Crimea increased significantly after the “Euromaidan” in 2014.

Surveys also revealed a significant rise in separatist attitudes in many Southern and Eastern regions after the “Orange Revolution.” These attitudes mostly manifested themselves in the form of support for federalism, specifically in the wake of a Party of Regions-led move to declare an autonomous republic in the South and the East during the “Orange Revolution.”²⁶ For example, in the joint KIIS and the Razumkov Center survey in May 2005, 61 percent of the respondents in the East (Donetsk, Luhansk, and Kharkiv Regions) and 42 percent in the South, compared to 31 percent in the Center and 26 percent in the West supported the federalization of Ukraine.²⁷ This data excludes undecided.

The 2013 Razumkov Center survey conducted during the “Euromaidan” in December showed significant decline in regional differences concerning support for federal Ukraine, even when disparities in regional classification with the 2005 survey are taken into account. Twenty nine percent of the respondents in the East, which was defined in this survey as including

Donetsk, Luhansk, Kharkiv, Dnipropetrovsk, and Zaporizzhia Regions, and 23 percent in the South, compared to 15 percent in both the Center and the West, favored the federalization of Ukraine.²⁸

In a separate question in the December 2013 Razumkov Center poll, 10 percent of the residents in the East and 16 percent in the South, compared to 5 percent in Western Ukraine and 2 percent in the Center, backed secession of their region from Ukraine and joining another state. Independence of their regions was supported by 5 percent of the respondents in the East, 13 percent in the South, 3 percent in the West, and 1 percent in the Center.²⁹

The KIIS survey conducted from April 29 to May 11, 2014 in all regions of Ukraine with exception of Crimea showed that the regional differences in terms of the levels and the forms of separatist preferences, including federalism, significantly increased compared to December 2013, Support for different forms of separatism, in particular federalism, dropped to zero in historic regions of Western Ukraine and to 3 percent in the Center. (See Figure 1).

However, this survey shows that the majority residents of Donbas in April/May 2014 backed different forms of separatism (54 percent overall or 61 percent excluding undecided). There were also significant but varying levels of separatist support in three Eastern regions neighboring Donbas (15 percent) and in the South (10 percent). In Donbas, 23 percent of the respondents favored autonomy as a part of federal Ukraine, compared to 8 percent supporting independence of their region and 23 percent favoring their region joining Russia. Many separatist leaders at the time of the 2014 KIIS survey called for federalism and regional autonomy in Ukraine. The Russian government also then pressed for a similar form of separatism, while the central government of Ukraine rejected federalism by associating it with separatism and persecuting separatism as a criminal offence. Conversely, preserving current status of their

regions within a unitary Ukraine but with expanded powers had a majority support in all regions except Donbas.³⁰

The 2014 KIIS survey results show that views expressed by the Russian government and media concerning widespread popular support for separatism in all Eastern and Southern Ukraine, referred by President Putin and pro-Russian separatists as Novorossia, were unfounded. Overall, ethnic Russians in Ukraine were split on the issue of separatism. Similar percentages of ethnic Russians, including people with mixed Russian and Ukrainian descent, supported preservation of the current unitary system (40 percent), mostly with expanded powers and different separatist options (44 percent), in particular, joining Russia (18 percent). In contrast, only 24 percent of Russian speakers, who include many ethnic Ukrainians, favored secession from Ukraine or regional autonomy in federal Ukraine. (Figure 1).

Multiple regression analysis shows that residents of Donbas and other Eastern regions (Kharkiv, Dnipropetrovsk, and Zaporizhzhia) expressed greater support for separatism, when other factors are held constant. Similarly, ethnic Russians, other ethnic minorities, Communist Party voters, younger people, adherents of the Ukrainian Orthodox Church (Moscow Patriarchate), and men expressed much stronger pro-separatist views. All these determinants of separatism were statistically significant. In contrast, other historical regional variables, political parties, religious confessions, the Russian language, the education level, and settlement size did not have positive and statistically significant effects on support of separatism. Age and a voting preference for Solidarnist, a party of Petro Poroshenko, who was elected as president of Ukraine in May 2014, had a negative effect on pro-separatist attitudes. (See Table 7). The separatism is measured on a scale from 1 to 3, with 1 meaning support for preservation of the respondents' region in unitary Ukraine with current or expanded powers of regions, 2 defining support for

federal Ukraine with significant regional autonomy, and 3 expressing support for secession of their region from Ukraine and joining another state or becoming independent.

[Table 7 about here]

Foreign Policy Orientations

A comparative analysis of Razumkov Center polls show that regional differences concerning the European Union membership of Ukraine increased after the “Orange Revolution.” The Razumkov Center survey taken in the end of April 2014 shows that this division also grew wider following the “Euromaidan.” The level of support for joining the EU in 2002-2014 remained relatively stable in Western Ukraine (around 80-95 percent) and the Center (around 60-80 percent). However, public backing for Ukraine joining the EU declined significantly in the East and the South since the “Orange Revolution.” While the majority of the respondents in these two regions (around 60-80 percent) backed the EU membership prior to the 2004 presidential elections, the level of support, generally, dropped below 50 percent after the “Orange Revolution.” Similarly, since the “Euromaidan,” the EU membership backing declined to 31 percent in the South, which was not included in the April 2014 Razumkov Center poll, and to 36 percent in the East from 44 percent in both these regions in the previous such poll released in 2008. (See Figure 2).

[Figures 2 and 3 about here]

Razumkov Center polls show that regional disparities concerning support for Ukraine joining NATO increased somewhat after the “Orange Revolution.” The differences between Western Ukraine and the East and the South on this issue grew further after the “Euromaidan.”

In contrast, a significant jump in public support for NATO membership of Ukraine in the Center brought this region closer to Western Ukraine on this major foreign policy issue. (See Figure 3).

KIIS polls show significant regional changes in preferred relations of Ukraine with Russia after the “Euromaidan,” in contrast to relatively modest changes after the “Orange Revolution.” In particular, support for Ukraine and Russia uniting into one state declined in all regions in the end of April 2014. However, the regional differences concerning relations with Russia remained significant in many instances. For example, 27 percent of the respondents in the East and 7 percent in the South, compared to zero percent in the West, preferred unification of Ukraine with Russia in the April 2014 KIIS poll. (Table 8).

[Table 8 about here]

The Eastern, Southern, and, to a lesser extent Central regions, also had higher levels of support for friendly but independent relations between Ukraine and Russia with open borders, without visas or customs in the 2014 KIIS poll. Conversely, a much higher proportion of the respondents in the West than in other regions continued to embrace a view that Ukraine and Russia should be like other independent countries with closed borders and with visas. (See Table 6). It is noteworthy that the Razumkov Center poll in April 2014 showed that 70 percent of the respondents in the West, 66 percent in the Center, 53 percent in the South, and 40 percent in the East believed that there was a war between Ukraine and Russia.³¹

Conclusion

This study shows that Ukraine after the “Orange Revolution” and on many issues after the “Euromaidan” remained divided along regional lines in terms of support for major political parties and presidential candidates and attitudes concerning such principal foreign policy issues

as Ukraine's membership in NATO and the European Union and relations of Ukraine with Russia. Regional divides concerning EU and NATO membership increased after the "Orange Revolution" and the "Euromaidan," while such differences significantly decreased concerning Ukraine and Russia uniting into one state.

Comparative and statistical analyses of the presidential elections results show significant decline or disappearance in certain cases, specifically in the Center, compared to Western Ukraine, of manifested regional differences in support for pro-Russian/pro-communist and nationalist/pro-Western candidates after the "Euromaidan." Similar patterns emerged concerning support for both these groups of parties in the parliamentary elections. However, there significant differences in the electoral preferences remain, primarily, involving the East and the South.

The analysis of various survey data indicates that support for separatism in Crimea and Donbas increased significantly after the "Euromaidan" that resulted in a violent overthrow of the relatively pro-Russian government. A civil war in Donbas by pro-Russian and Russian backed separatists and the Russian military interventions in Crimea and Donbas in support of separatists signified a de facto break up of Ukraine. The significant rise in separatist orientations in Crimea and Donbas after the "Euromaidan," the civil war, and the Russian direct military interventions in support of pro-Russian separatists in both regions imply that Donbas is unlikely to remain de facto in united Ukraine unless it would get a significant autonomy in a confederation-type political system, while a return of Crimea from Russia to Ukraine would be virtually impossible.

Table 1. Regional vote for presidential candidates in the first rounds of the 2014, 2010, and 2004 presidential elections, percent

Region	Pro-nationalist/ pro-Western			Pro-Russian/ pro-communist		
	2004	2010	2014	2004	2010	2014
<i>West</i>						
Chernivtsi	67	10	34	25	21	1
Ivano-Frankivsk	89	31	31	7	6	0
Lviv	87	38	26	9	6	0
Rivne	69	11	37	25	15	1
Ternopil	88	33	35	9	11	0
Transcarpathia	47	8	26	44	32	3
Volyn	77	9	40	17	12	1
<i>East</i>						
Dnipropetrovsk	19	3	24	70	46	8
Donetsk	3	1	16	93	80	11
Kharkiv	15	3	17	74	55	29
Luhansk	5	1	20	90	76	13
Zaporizhzhia	17	2	22	74	56	10
<i>South</i>						
Crimea	12	2	-	81	66	-
Kherson	32	4	25	58	48	6
Mykolaiv	18	3	20	71	57	8
Odesa	17	3	18	72	54	8
<i>Center</i>						
Cherkassy	58	8	37	36	22	1
Chernihiv	43	5	44	49	25	2
Khmelnitsky	58	6	36	35	18	1
Kyiv City	62	9	25	24	19	1
Kyiv Region	60	6	30	32	18	1
Kirovohrad	39	3	35	53	32	3
Poltava	44	5	32	49	31	3
Sumy	53	7	31	39	25	4
Vinnitsia	60	5	26	34	19	1
Zhytomyr	44	5	31	48	28	2

Source: Central Electoral Commission, <http://www.cvk.gov.ua>.

Table 2. Determinants of the regional vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist candidates in the first round of the 2004, 2010, and 2014 presidential elections, OLS regressions

	Pro-nationalist/pro-Western			Pro-Russian/pro-communist		
	2004	2010	2014	2004	2010	2014
	B	B	B	B	B	B
Ethnic Ukrainian	0.401**	0.084	0.299	-0.434**	-0.445***	-0.034
Urban	0.129	0.279**	0.104	-0.026	0.091	0.043
GDP per capita	0.000	0.000	0.000	-0.001	-0.001	0.000
Catholic	0.242**	0.338***	-0.086	-0.194*	-0.085	-0.010
Center	-18.502**	-7.086***	-2.213	17.728**	6.611	0.846
South	-39.350***	-9.717***	-10.990**	34.561***	25.194***	4.944
East	-52.407***	-14.790***	-9.990	48.558***	33.631***	11.499*
Constant	23.112	-8.557	6.058	70.342***	57.063***	3.431
R Square	0.92	0.92	0.76	0.92	0.92	0.70
N	26	26	25	26	26	25

*** Statistically significant at the .01 level, ** statistically significant at the .05 level, * statistically significant at the .1 level. South does not include Crimea in 2014.

Table 3. Determinants of vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist parties and presidential candidates, 2014 and 2007 KIIS surveys, logistic regressions (odds ratios)

	Pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties and blocs		Pro-Russian/pro-communist parties and blocs		Pro-nationalist/pro-Western presidential candidates		Pro-Russian/ pro-communist presidential candidates	
	2007	2014	2007	2014	2007	2014	2007	2014
Ethnic Russian	.078**	.441**	3.358***	1.489*	.222**	.655	2.115***	.990
Other ethnic minority	.258	1.720	.865	.441	.910	.811	.799	.475
Russian-speaker	.674	.993	1.257	1.095	.487*	1.192	1.669*	1.176
Male	1.046	.948	1.177	.942	1.079	1.000	1.091	.671*
Age	1.013*	1.005	1.015***	1.027***	1.003	1.013**	1.009*	.996
Education	1.041	.934	.918*	.924	.931	1.003	.879***	1.008
Settlement type	1.415	.959	.913	1.059	1.026	.982	.929	1.007
Center	.394***	.774	4.540***	9.118**	.500***	1.077	4.100***	1.846
South****	.306*	.519**	17.916***	25.165***	.223***	.788	16.123***	8.877***
East	.270***	.225***	24.807***	46.380***	.234***	.399***	18.412***	9.003***
Constant	.128***	.433*	.070***	.002***	.607	.079***	.109***	.020***
Nagelkerke R Square	.17	.10	.44	.23	.20	.04	.41	.12
N	1098	2015	1098	2015	1175	2015	1175	2015

*** Statistically significant at the .001 level, ** statistically significant at the .01 level, * statistically significant at the .05 level.

**** does not include Crimea in 2014.

Table 4. Vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western and pro-Russian/pro-communist political parties and blocs in the 2002, 2006, 2007, and 2012 parliamentary elections, percent

Region	Pro-nationalist/pro-Western				Pro-Russian/pro-communist			
	2002	2006	2007	2012	2002	2006	2007	2012
<i>West</i>								
Chernivtsi	46	31	21	50	20	21	23	26
Ivano-Frankivsk	75	55	40	75	6	5	5	7
Lviv	64	49	39	76	9	6	6	7
Rivne	55	36	22	56	21	17	15	22
Ternopil	69	49	39	74	5	7	5	8
Transcarpathia	37	30	32	38	21	25	26	36
Volyn	58	30	21	59	17	11	12	20
<i>East</i>								
Dnipropetrovsk	6	6.5	7	24	56	58	59	55
Donetsk	3	2	2	7	76	88	89	84
Kharkiv	6	7	8	20	59	64	63	62
Luhansk	4	2	2	7	67	85	86	83
Zaporizhzhia	8	7	5	19	54	66	68	62
<i>South</i>								
Crimea	9	8	7	13	55	71	77	74
Kherson	12	11	9	27	55	54	57	53
Mykolaiv	6	7	6	22	57	64	66	60
Odesa	7	8	7	19	56	61	67	60
<i>Center</i>								
Cherkassy	27	16	16	49	42	29	25	28
Chernihiv	25	14	15	38	46	36	32	33
Khmelnysky	35	23	19	51	35	23	20	28
Kyiv City	28	20	17	49	23	22	22	20
Kyiv Region	26	16	16	48	38	23	19	27
Kirovohrad	10	11	12	39	56	37	37	40
Poltava	21	16	15	39	51	40	35	36
Sumy	19	22	21	44	56	29	25	33
Vinnysia	29	23	19	55	43	28	21	26
Zhytomyr	22	20	16	45	48	33	31	35

Source: Central Electoral Commission, <http://www.cvk.gov.ua>.

Table 5. Determinants of regional vote for pro-nationalist/pro-Western parties and blocs in the 2002, 2006, 2007, and 2012 parliamentary elections, OLS regressions

	2002 elections		2006 elections		2007 elections		2012 elections	
	B	Beta	B	Beta	B	Beta	B	Beta
Ethnic Ukrainian	.157	.123	.080	.093	.024	.038	0.358***	0.306
Urban	-.033	-.025	-.030	-.034	-.069	-.102	0.010	0.008
GDP per capita	.000	.057	.000	.045	.000	.058	0.000	0.071
Catholic	.253***	.246	.263***	.379	.238***	.458	0.276***	0.291
Center	-26.283***	-.598	-14.029***	-.475	-6.358**	-.288	-8.351	-0.207
South	-36.935***	-.624	-21.026***	-.528	-14.368***	-.483	-22.821***	-0.421
East	-40.858***	-.754	-24.827***	-.680	-16.263***	-.597	-30.655***	-0.617
Constant	35.632*		25.299**		23.499***		17.915	
R Square	.92		.93		.94		.89	
N	26		26		26		25	

*** Statistically significant at the .01 level, ** statistically significant at the .05 level, * statistically significant at the .1 level.

Table 6. Determinants of regional vote for pro-Russian/pro-communist parties and blocs in the 2002, 2006, 2007, and 2012 parliamentary elections, OLS regressions

	2002 elections		2006 elections		2007 elections		2012 elections	
	B	Beta	B	Beta	B	Beta	B	Beta
Ethnic Ukrainian	-.072	-.062	-.375***	-.263	-.438***	-.287	-0.457***	-0.349
Urban	.372	.304	.094	.063	.145	.090	0.195	0.142
GDP per capita	-.002**	-.377	-.001	-.123	-.001	-.108	0.000*	-0.235
Catholic	-.207**	-.220	-.115	-.099	-.135	-.110	-0.184**	-0.174
Center	23.103***	.578	14.068**	.286	9.322*	.178	8.224*	0.183
South****	28.705***	.533	34.646***	.523	35.152***	.497	22.774***	0.375
East	33.254***	.674	45.769***	.755	42.706***	.659	32.239***	0.580
Constant	19.028		50.087***		54.009***		62.852***	
R Square	.92		.94		.95		.95	
N	26		26		26		25	

*** Statistically significant at the .01 level, ** statistically significant at the .05 level, * statistically significant at the .1 level.

Table 7. Determinants of support for separatism in Ukraine, 2014 KIIS survey, OLS regression

	B	Beta
Ethnic Russian	.331***	.199
Other ethnic minority	.234**	.052
Russian-speaker	-.037	-.032
Male	.064**	.057
Age	-.003***	-.079
Education	-.009	-.030
Settlement type	.009	.039
Volhynia	-.052	-.020
Transcarpathia	-.035	-.010
Bukovyna	-.025	-.006
Center	.035	.029
Donbas	.711***	.452
Other East	.120*	.082
South***	.071	.039
Fatherland	-.060	-.032
Svoboda	-.033	-.011
Communist Party	.159**	.059
Party of regions	.091	.038
Solidarnist	-.129***	-.088
Our Ukraine	-.180	-.033
Other Parties	-.138*	-.046
Against All	-.030	-.016
Orthodox (Moscow Patriarchate)	.114**	.078
Orthodox Autocephalous	-.015	-.003
Orthodox (Kyiv Patriarchate)	.016	.013
Greek Catholic	.034	.015
Other Religions	-.113	-.026
No religious confession	.055	.043
Constant	1.141***	
Adjusted R Square	.373	
N	1801	

*** Statistically significant at the .001 level, ** statistically significant at the .01 level, * statistically significant at the .05 level. ***** does not include Crimea.

Table 8. Regional differences in views of preferred relations between Ukraine and Russia in Ukraine in 1996, 2008, and 2014 (KIIS Surveys), percent

	1996				2008				2014			
	West	Center	South	East	West	Center	South	East	West	Center	South*	East
Like other independent countries with closed borders, visas and customs	50	10	5	6	33	11	7	4	55	44	21	11
Independent but friendly countries with open borders (no visas and customs)	43	75	55	45	62	69	60	49	45	53	72	62
Unification into one state	6	15	40	49	5	20	33	47	0	3	7	27
Total (percent)	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100

*Does not include Crimea

Source: Calculated from KIIS surveys, <http://kiis.com.ua>.

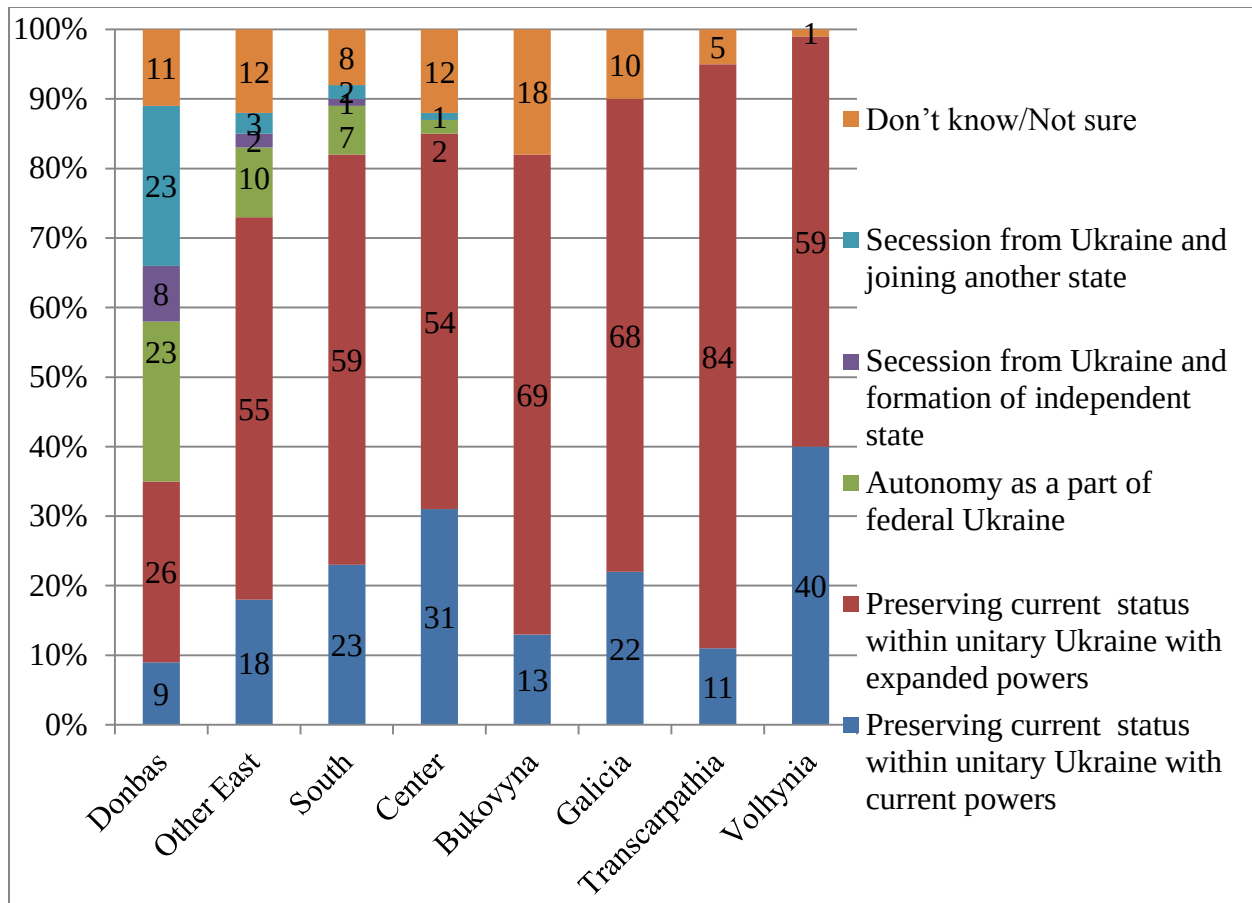


Figure 1. Support for separatism in different regions of Ukraine, the 2014 KIIS Survey, percent

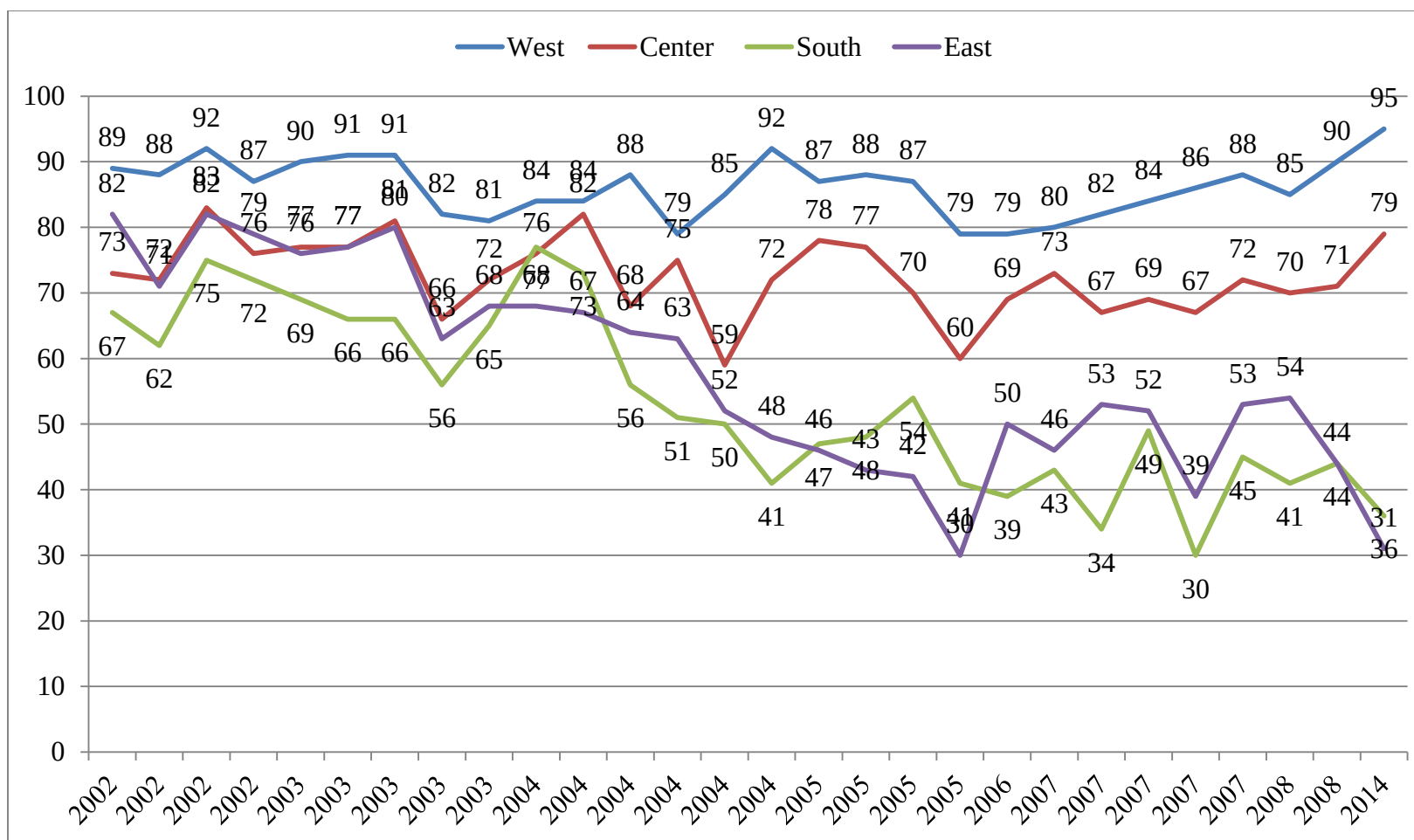


Figure 2. Regional support for Ukraine's membership in the European Union, Razumkov Center polls, percent. Note: "Don't know" and "not sure" are excluded. The April 2014 poll was not conducted in Crimea. Source: Calculated from "Spivrobitnytstvo Ukrainy z ES: Otsinky hromadian," *Natzionalna bezpeka i oborona* 6 (2008): 37-56 and Razumkov Center, <http://www.uceps.org>.

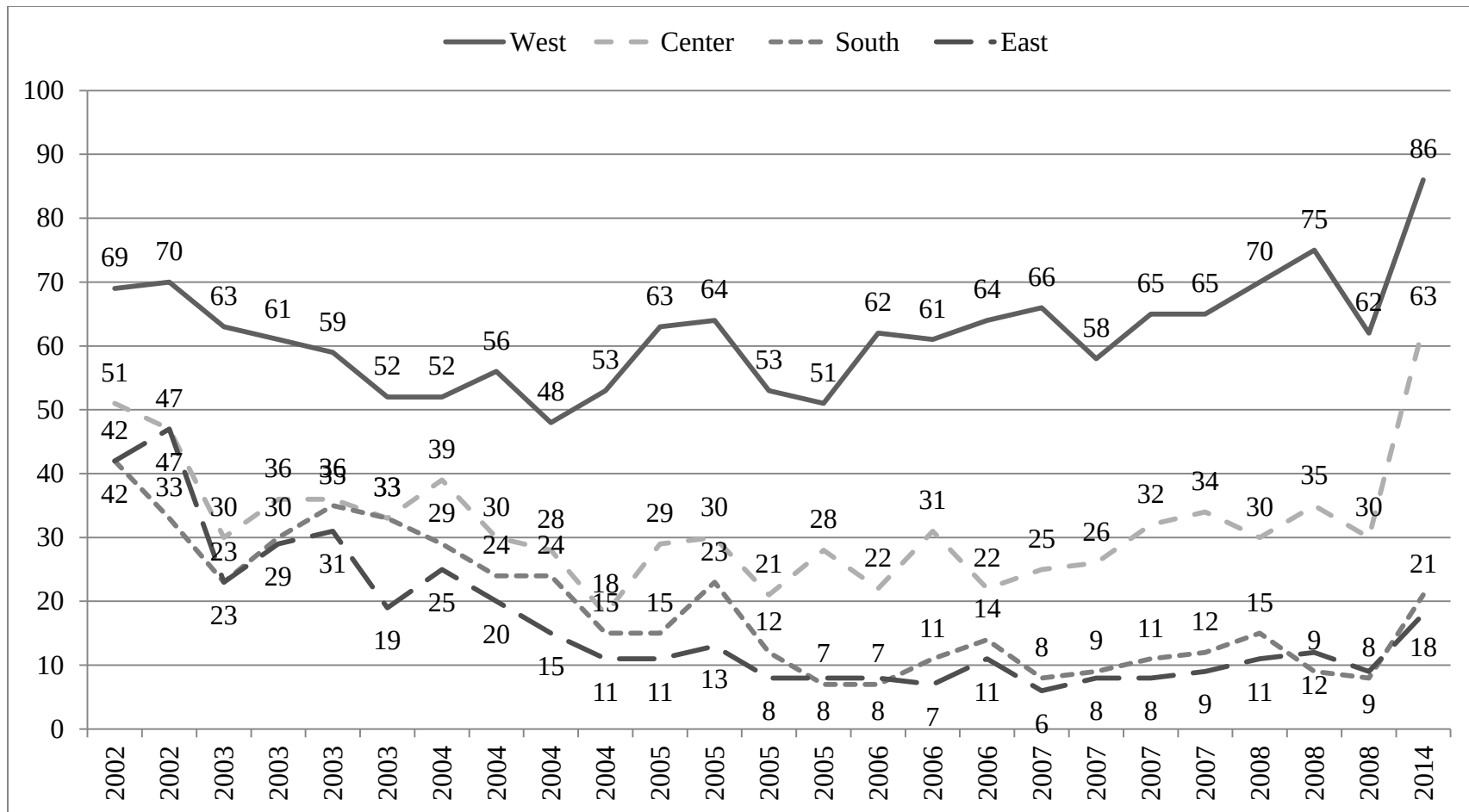


Figure 3. Regional vote for Ukraine's membership in NATO if a referendum was held at the time of the poll, Razumkov Center polls, percent. Note: "Don't know" and non-voters are excluded. The April 2014 poll was not conducted in Crimea. Source: Calculated from "Informatsiina skladova evropeiskoi ta evroatlantychnoi integratsii: hromadska dumka," *Natzionalna bezpeka i oborona* 1 (2008): 42-60; and Razumkov Center, <http://www.uceps.org>.

Notes

¹ On the “Orange Revolution,” see, for example, Anders Aslund and Michael A. McFaul, eds., *Revolution in Orange: The Origins of Ukraine’s Democratic Breakthrough* (Washington: Carnegie Endowment for International Peace, 2006); Ingmar Bredies, Andreas Umland, and Valentin Yakushik, eds., *Aspects of the Orange Revolution III: The Context and Dynamics of the 2004 Ukrainian Presidential Elections* (Stuttgart: Ibidem-Verlag, 2007); Ivan Katchanovski, “The Orange Evolution? The “Orange Revolution” and Political Changes in Ukraine,” *Post-Soviet Affairs*, 24 (4), 2008): 351-382; and Andrew Wilson, *Ukraine’s Orange Revolution* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 2005).

² Dominique Arel, “The Orange Revolution's hidden face: Ukraine and the denial of its regional problem,” *Revue Detudes Comparatives Est-Ouest* 37 (2006): 11-48; Lowell Barrington and Regina Faranda, “Reexamining Region, Ethnicity, and Language in Ukraine,” *Post-Soviet Affairs* 25 (2009): 232-256; Lowell Barrington and Erick Herron, “One Ukraine or Many?: Regionalism in Ukraine and its political consequences,” *Nationalities Papers* 32 (2004): 53-86; Lowell Barrington, “The Geographic Component of Mass Attitudes in Ukraine,” *Post-Soviet Geography* 38 (1997): 601-614; Sarah Birch, *Elections and Democratization in Ukraine* (New York: St. Martin Press, 2000); Sarah Birch, “Interpreting the Regional Effect in Ukrainian Politics,” *Europe-Asia Studies* 52 (2000): 1017-1042; Ralph S. Clem and Peter R. Craumer, “Orange, Blue and White, and Blonde: The Electoral Geography of Ukraine's 2006 and 2007 Rada Elections,” *Eurasian Geography and Economics* 49 (2008): 127-151; Ralph S. Clem and Peter R. Craumer, “Shades of Orange: The Electoral Geography of Ukraine's 2004 Presidential Elections,” *Eurasian Geography and Economics* 46 (2005): 364-385; Timothy J. Colton, “An Aligning

Election and the Ukrainian Political Community,” *East European Politics and Societies*, 25 (2011): 4-27; Vicki Hesli, William Reisinger, and Arthur Miller, “Political Party Development in Divided Societies: The Case of Ukraine,” *Electoral Studies* 17 (1998): 235-256; Ivan Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries: Regional Political Divisions and Cultures in Post-Soviet Ukraine and Moldova* (Stuttgart: Ibidem-Verlag, 2006); Ivan Katchanovski, “Regional Political Divisions in Ukraine in 1991-2006,” *Nationalities Papers* 34 (2006): 507-532; Ivan Katchanovski, “Regional Political Cleavages, Electoral Behavior, and Historical Legacies in Ukraine,” in Bredies, Umland, and Yakushik, eds., *Aspects of the Orange Revolution III*, 55-77; Ivan Katchanovski, “Political Regionalism in “Orange” Ukraine,” paper presented at the Annual Meeting of the American Political Science Association, Boston (2008); Paul Kubicek, “Regional Polarisation in Ukraine: Public Opinion, Voting and Legislative Behaviour,” *Europe-Asia Studies* 52 (2000): 272-293; Stephen Shulman, “Cultural comparisons and their consequences for nationhood in Ukraine,” *Communist and Post-Communist Studies* 39 (2006): 247-263; and Stephen Shulman, “Asymmetrical International Integration and Ukrainian National Disunity,” *Political Geography*, 18 (1999): 913-939.

³ Timothy J. Colton, “Thinking the Unthinkable: Is the Breakup of the Ukrainian State a Real Threat?” Paper presented at the Sixth Annual Danyliw Research Seminar, University of Ottawa, (October 2010); Keith A. Darden, “Conditional Property and Regional Political Cultures: Challenges for U.S. Foreign Policy in the Post-Soviet Space,” in Timothy Colton, Timothy Frye, and Robert Legvold, eds., *The Policy World Meets Academia: Designing U.S. Policy toward Russia* (Cambridge: American Academy of Arts & Sciences, 2010), 70-78; Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; “Political Regionalism in Orange Ukraine.”

⁴ Katchanovski, “Cleft Countries.”

⁵ Gwendolyn Sasse, *The Crimea Question: Identity, Transition, and Conflict* (Cambridge: Harvard Ukrainian Research Institute, 2007); Taras Kuzio, *Ukraine - Crimea - Russia: Triangle of Conflict* (Stuttgart: Ibidem-Verlag, 2007).

⁶ See Ivan Katchanovski, “The “Snipers’ Massacre” on the Maidan in Ukraine,” unpublished manuscript, and for instance, an unreported intercept of radio communications of Security Service of Ukraine Alfa commanders during the massacre in the morning of February 20, 2014, <https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=ziTW0PG7SBM>.

⁷ A United Nations reported, based on official body counts, that at least 2,518 people were killed in Donbas as of August 17, 2014, including at least 618 members of Ukrainian regular military, police, the National Guard, border guards, and security services forces and special police battalions, 1,602 civilians and some members of separatist formations, and 298 passengers and crew of the shot-down Malaysian Airlines plane. This official statistics, which increased to at least 2,891 people killed as of August 29, 2014, significantly underreported casualties, specifically by omitting missing members of the Ukrainian forces and civilians, many of whom were likely killed, and it did not include the absolute majority of killed members of armed separatist units. (See *Report on the Human Rights Situation in Ukraine* (Office of the United Nations High Commissioner for Human Rights, 2014, <http://www.ohchr.org/Documents/Countries/UA/UkraineReport28August2014.pdf>).

⁸ See, for example, Lyudmyla Pavlyuk, “Extreme rhetoric in the 2004 presidential campaign: Images of geopolitical and regional division,” *Canadian Slavonic Papers* 47 (2005): 293-316.

⁹ Olena Nikolayenko, “The Revolt of the Post-Soviet Generation: Youth Movements in Serbia, Georgia, and Ukraine,” *Comparative Politics* 39 (2007): 169-188.

¹⁰ See, for example, Jean-Pierre Cabestan and Aleksandar Pavković, eds. *Secessionism and Separatism in Europe and Asia: To Have a State of One's Own* (Abingdon, Routledge, 2013); Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*.

¹¹ See for instance, Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; “Vid Maidanu-taboru do Maidanu-sichi: Shcho zminylosia?” KIIS (2014), <http://www.kiis.com.ua/?lang=ukr&cat=reports&id=226>; “Statystyka protestnykh dii Maidanu,” Tsentr doslidzhennia suspilstva (2014), http://www.cedos.org.ua/system/attachments/files/000/000/051/original/CSR_-_Maidan_-_9_Jul_2014.pdf?1404905306.

¹² See, for example, Gabriel Almond and Sidney Verba, *The Civic Culture: Political Attitudes and Democracy in Five Nations* (Boston, Little, Brown, 1965); Seymour Martin Lipset, *Continental Divide: The Values and Institutions of the United States and Canada* (New York, Routledge, 1990); and Robert Putnam, with Robert Leonardi & Raffaella Y. Nanetti, *Making Democracy Work: Civic Traditions in Modern Italy* (Princeton, Princeton University Press, 1993).

¹³ Seymour Martin Lipset and Stein Rokkan, ‘Cleavage Structures, Party Systems, and Voter Alignments,’ in Seymour Martin Lipset and Stein Rokkan, eds., *Party Systems and Voter Alignments: Cross-national Perspectives* (New York, Free Press, 1967), 1-64.

¹⁴ See Birch, “Interpreting the Regional Effect;” Steven Roper and Florin Fesnic, “Historical Legacies and Their Impact on Post-Communist Voting Behavior,” *Europe-Asia Studies* 55 (2003): 119-131; and Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; Katchanovski, “Political Regionalism.”

¹⁵ See Fisher, Alan W., *The Crimean Tatars* (Stanford: Hoover Institution Press), 1978; and Ivan Katchanovski, “Small Nations but Great Differences: Political Orientations and Cultures of the

Crimean Tatars and the Gagauz,” *Europe-Asia Studies* 57 (2005): 877-894; Katchanovski, “Political Regionalism.”

¹⁶ Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*, 97-100, Katchanovski, “Political Regionalism.”

¹⁷ See, for example, Dominique Arel, “Ukraine: The Temptation of the Nationalizing State,” in Vladimir Tismaneanu, ed., *Political Culture and Civil Society in Russia and the New States of Eurasia* (Armonk, M. E. Sharpe, 1995), 157-188.

¹⁸ Peter Craumer and James Clem, “Ukraine's Emerging Electoral Geography: A Regional Analysis of the 1998 Parliamentary Elections,” *Post-Soviet Geography and Economics* 40 (1999): 1-26; and Vlad Mykhnenko, “Class Voting and the Orange Revolution: A Cultural Political Economy Perspective on Ukraine's Electoral Geography,” *Journal of Communist Studies and Transition Politics*, 25 (2009): 278-296.

¹⁹ “AR Krym: Liudy, problemy, perspektyvy,” *Natsionalna bezpeka i oborona* 10 (2008): 2-72.

²⁰ Calculated from “Krym na politychnii karti Ukrainy,” *Natsionalna bezpeka i oborona* 4 (2001): 2-39.

²¹ Calculated from “AR Krym.”

²² “Yakist zhyttia zhyteliv Krymu ta perspektyvy ii pokrashchennia v konteksti stratehii realizatsii kontseptsii ekonomichnoho ta sotsialnoho rozvytku AR Krym na 2011-2020rr,” Razumkov Center, http://www.uceps.org/upload/Prz_Krym_2011_Yakymenko.pdf, (2011): 27.

²³ Calculated from AR Krym,” 20.

²⁴ “Yakist zhyttia zhyteliv Krymu,” Razumkov Center, 27.

²⁵ Pew Research Center's Global Attitudes Project, “Ukrainians Want Unity Amid Worries about Political Leadership and Ethnic Conflict,” <http://www.pewglobal.org/2014/05/08/chapter-1-ukraine-desire-for-unity-amid-worries-about-political-leadership-ethnic-conflict>, (2014).

²⁶ Katchanovski, “Cleft Countries.”

²⁷ “Otsinka dii vlady, suspilno-politychni ta elektoralni orientatsii hromadian,” Razumkov Center, <http://www.razumkov.org.ua>, (2005).

²⁸ “Stavlennia hromadian Ukrainy do riznykh variantiiv ii terytolialnoho rozvytku,” Razumkov Center, <http://www.razumkov.org.ua>, (2014).

²⁹ Undecided are excluded. “Stavlennia hromadian Ukrainy,” Razumkov Center.

³⁰ Ivan Katchanovski, “What do citizens of Ukraine actually think about secession?” *Washington Post Monkey Cage*, July 20 (2014).

³¹ See <http://www.razumkov.org.ua>.